

Pattern Matching and Machine Learning for Audio Signal Processing

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Chapter 3: Discrete Time Signals and Digital Filters

Chapter 3: Discrete Time Signals and Digital Filters	2
Goals of Chapter 3	2
Spaces of DT-signals	3
Fourier transform of DT-signals	4
Fourier series	5
Lossless vs. lossy signal operations	6
Linear systems	7
Time shift operators	8
Downsampling operators	9
Proof of the aliasing theorem*	10
Upsampling operators	11
Spectral impact of upsampling	12
Amplitude modulation	13
Spectral impact of modulation	14
LTI systems and convolution	15
Illustration of the convolution	16
Properties of the convolution	17
The convolution theorem	18
Time-shifts are convolution operators	19
Frequency response	20
Amplitude response & phase response	21
Properties of the frequency response	22
Illustration: amplitude- & phase-response	23
FIR, IIR & causal filters	24
Ideal low-, high- & band-pass filters	25
Illustration of ideal filters	26
Real low-pass filter	27
The z-transform	28
Definition of the z-transform	29
Illustration of region of convergence	30

Properties of the z-transform (1).	31
Properties of the z-transform (2).	32
Transfer function	33

Goals of Chapter 3

- Fourier transforms of DT-signals
- Fourier series of periodic signals
- Lossless vs. lossy signal operations
- Fundamental linear systems
- LTI systems
- Convolution theorem
- FIR and IIR filters
- Impulse and frequency response
- Low-pass, high-pass, and band-pass filters
- z -transform

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Chapter 3: Discrete Time Signals and Digital Filters – 2 / 33

Spaces of DT-signals

- In the last chapter we discussed finite signals and the Discrete Fourier Transform. The DFT maps a **time dependent signal** $x \in \mathbb{C}^N$ to its **frequency dependent spectrum** $X = \text{DFT}_N x \in \mathbb{C}^N$. Note that in this case, the signal and the spectral domain coincide, only the interpretation of the parameters differ: time vs. frequency. Moreover, the DFT is invertible, thus the signal x can be recovered from its spectrum X .
- We are going to extend the Fourier analysis to DT-signals $x : \mathbb{Z} \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$. To this end, we introduce suitable signal and spectral spaces. We start with signal spaces.

$$\ell^p(\mathbb{Z}) := \{x : \mathbb{Z} \rightarrow \mathbb{C} \mid \|x\|_p := \left(\sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} |x(n)|^p \right)^{1/p} < \infty\}, \quad \text{for } 1 \leq p < \infty,$$

$$\ell^\infty(\mathbb{Z}) := \{x : \mathbb{Z} \rightarrow \mathbb{C} \mid \|x\|_\infty := \sup_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} |x(n)| < \infty\} \quad (\text{bounded DT-signals})$$

- All these spaces are normed linear vector spaces. Moreover, if $1 \leq p < q \leq \infty$, then $\ell^p(\mathbb{Z})$ is a proper subspace of $\ell^q(\mathbb{Z})$. In addition, $\langle x|y \rangle := \sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} x(n)\overline{y(n)}$ defines an inner product on $\ell^2(\mathbb{Z})$ and $\|x\|_2 = \sqrt{\langle x|x \rangle}$.

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Chapter 3: Discrete Time Signals and Digital Filters – 3 / 33

Fourier transform of DT-signals

- Recall that the spectrum X of $x \in \mathbb{C}^N$ is obtained by evaluating the polynomial $p(z) := \sum_{n=0}^{N-1} x_n z^n$ at all N -th roots of unity: $X = \left(p(\omega^0), p(\omega^1), \dots, p(\omega^{N-1}) \right)^\top$, where $\omega := e^{-2\pi i/N}$.
- The Fourier transform of DT-signals $x : \mathbb{Z} \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$ is the limit $|N| \rightarrow \infty$. Thus in the present case, the Fourier transform is a function of a continuum of frequencies.
- The Fourier transform $X = \hat{x}$ of a DT-signal $x \in \ell^2(\mathbb{Z})$ is defined by

$$X(\omega) := \sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} x(n) e^{-2\pi i \omega n}, \quad \text{for } 0 \leq \omega < 1.$$

- X is an element of $L^2([0; 1)) := \{f : [0; 1) \rightarrow \mathbb{C} \mid \int_0^1 |f(\omega)|^2 d\omega < \infty\}$, which can be viewed as the space of all 1-periodic functions of finite 2-norm equipped with the inner product $\langle f|g \rangle = \int_0^1 f(\omega) \overline{g(\omega)} d\omega$.

Theorem 1 (Plancherel). The Fourier transform $x \mapsto X$ is an isomorphism $\ell^2(\mathbb{Z}) \rightarrow L^2([0; 1))$ of inner product spaces. In particular, $\langle x|y \rangle = \langle \hat{x}|\hat{y} \rangle$.

Fourier series

Theorem 2. The family of functions $\left([0; 1) \ni \omega \mapsto e^{2\pi i k \omega} \right)_{k \in \mathbb{Z}}$ forms a complete ON-system in $L^2([0; 1))$. Thus every $f \in L^2([0; 1))$ can be written as a **Fourier series**

$$f(\omega) = \sum_{k \in \mathbb{Z}} \hat{f}(k) e^{2\pi i k \omega}, \quad (\omega \in [0; 1)),$$

with **Fourier coefficients** $\hat{f}(k) = \int_0^1 f(\omega) e^{-2\pi i k \omega} d\omega$.

Example. We compute the Fourier series of the box function

$$f(\omega) = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } \omega \in [0; 0.5) \\ 0 & \text{if } \omega \in (0.5; 1). \end{cases}$$

Obviously $f \in L^2([0; 1))$ and $\hat{f}(0) = \int_0^1 f(\omega) d\omega = 0.5$. For $0 \neq k \in \mathbb{Z}$ we obtain

$$\hat{f}(k) = \int_0^{0.5} e^{-2\pi i k \omega} d\omega = -\frac{1}{2\pi i k} e^{-2\pi i k \omega} \Big|_{\omega=0}^{\omega=0.5} = -\frac{1}{2\pi i k} (1 - (-1)^k).$$

Thus $f(\omega) = 0.5 - \sum_{k \in \mathbb{Z}, \text{odd}} \frac{1}{\pi i k} e^{2\pi i k \omega}$. ◇

Lossless vs. lossy signal operations

- Signal analysis methods like
 - ◆ **Fourier series** and **Fourier-Transforms**yield important information about the original signal, e.g., about the contained harmonic oscillations.
- All of the resulting new representations are **lossless**:
 - ◆ The original signal may be perfectly reconstructed.
- The signal is not changed but only transferred to an alternative representation.
- However, many applications **require to change** the original signal:
 - ◆ **Attenuation or emphasis of spectral characteristics**, e.g., for **noise reduction**,
 - ◆ **Compression, source separation, time stretching**, ...
- In this chapter we introduce fundamental mechanisms for manipulating signals.
 - ◆ Most of these manipulations go along with a **loss** of information.

Linear systems

- In general, every mechanism for modifying a signal is called a **system**.
- Formally, a **system** is specified by a mapping $T : E \rightarrow A$, transforming an input signal $x \in E$ to an output signal $y \in A$. Here, E and A denote suitable signal spaces.

$$x \longrightarrow \boxed{\text{System } T} \longrightarrow y.$$

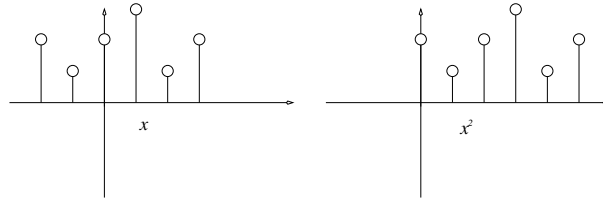
- The simplest, yet very important class of systems are the **linear systems**. Here, the spaces E and A are linear while the mapping $T : E \rightarrow A$ is $\mathbb{C}$ -linear, i.e., for all $x, y \in E$ and all $\lambda \in \mathbb{C}$:

$$T[x + y] = T[x] + T[y] \quad \text{and} \quad T[\lambda x] = \lambda T[x].$$

- We use the mathematical term **operator** interchangeably with the term system.
- **Examples of linear signal spaces:** $\mathbb{C}^N$, $\ell^\infty(\mathbb{Z})$, and $\ell^p(\mathbb{Z})$, for $1 \leq p < \infty$.
- We are going to introduce fundamental linear operators $L : \ell^2(\mathbb{Z}) \rightarrow \ell^2(\mathbb{Z})$. For each L we will also compare the Fourier transforms of $x \in \ell^2(\mathbb{Z})$ and Lx .

Time shift operators

- The **time-shift operator** T^k , $k \in \mathbb{Z}$, defined by $T^k[x](n) = x^k(n) := x(n - k)$ is a linear (lossless) operator $\ell^2(\mathbb{Z}) \rightarrow \ell^2(\mathbb{Z})$.



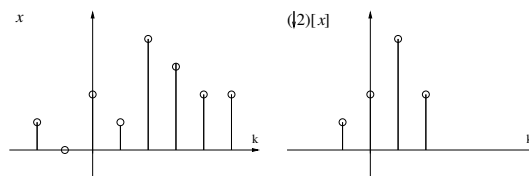
Theorem 3 (Shift Theorem). Let $x \in \ell^2(\mathbb{Z})$ and let $y = x^k$ denote the k -shift of x . Then

$$Y(\omega) = e^{-2\pi i \omega k} \cdot X(\omega).$$

Proof. $Y(\omega) = \sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} y(n) e^{-2\pi i \omega n} = \sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} x(n - k) e^{-2\pi i \omega (n - k + k)} = e^{-2\pi i \omega k} \cdot X(\omega).$ □

Downsampling operators

- The **downsampling operator** $\downarrow M$, $M \geq 2$, defined by $\downarrow M[x](n) := x(M \cdot n)$ is a (lossy) linear operator $\ell^2(\mathbb{Z}) \rightarrow \ell^2(\mathbb{Z})$.
- Downsampling $\downarrow M$ only conserves each M -th value of an input signal:



Theorem 4 (Aliasing Theorem). Let $x \in \ell^2(\mathbb{Z})$ and let $y = \downarrow M[x]$. Then

$$Y(\omega) = M^{-1} \sum_{k=0}^{M-1} X\left(\frac{\omega + k}{M}\right).$$

The terms for $k > 0$ are called **aliasing terms**.

Proof of the aliasing theorem*

$$\begin{aligned}
 \frac{1}{M} \sum_{k=0}^{M-1} X\left(\frac{\omega+k}{M}\right) &= \frac{1}{M} \sum_{k < M} \sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} x(n) e^{-2\pi i \frac{\omega+k}{M} n} \\
 &= \sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} x(n) \frac{1}{M} \sum_{k < M} e^{-2\pi i \frac{\omega+k}{M} n} \\
 &= \sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} x(n) e^{-2\pi i \frac{\omega}{M} n} \underbrace{\frac{1}{M} \sum_{k < M} (e^{-2\pi i (n/M)})^k}_{=: Z_n \stackrel{!}{=} \delta_{M|n}, \text{ see below}} \\
 &= \sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} x(Mn) e^{-2\pi i \frac{\omega}{M} (Mn)} \\
 &= \sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} y(n) e^{-2\pi i \omega n} = Y(\omega).
 \end{aligned}$$

$Z_n \stackrel{!}{=} \delta_{M|n}$: $q := e^{-2\pi i (n/M)} = 1$ iff M divides n . Thus $Z_n = 1$, if M divides n , otherwise $Z_n = 0$, according to the formula $\sum_{k < M} q^k = (q^M - 1)/(q - 1)$, valid for $q \neq 1$, and the fact that $q^M = 1$. $\square$

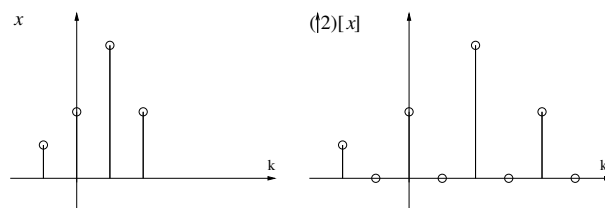
Upsampling operators

- The **upsampling** or **stretching operator** $\uparrow M$, $M \geq 2$, defined by

$$(\uparrow M)[x](n) = \begin{cases} x(n/M), & \text{if } M \text{ divides } n, \\ 0, & \text{otherwise.} \end{cases}$$

is a lossless linear operator $\ell^2(\mathbb{Z}) \rightarrow \ell^2(\mathbb{Z})$.

- $\uparrow M$ temporally stretches the input signal x by a factor of M and inserts zeros at all resulting $M - 1$ positions between two original x -values:



Spectral impact of upsampling

Theorem 5 (Stretch Theorem). Let $x \in \ell^2(\mathbb{Z})$, $M \geq 2$, and $y = \uparrow M x$. Then

$$Y(\omega) = X(M\omega).$$

Proof. Note that $y(n) = 0$ unless M divides n . If $n = mM$, then $y(n) = x(m)$. Hence

$$\begin{aligned} Y(\omega) &= \sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} y(n) e^{-2\pi i \omega n} = \sum_{m \in \mathbb{Z}} x(m) e^{-2\pi i \omega mM} = \sum_{m \in \mathbb{Z}} x(m) e^{-2\pi i (M\omega)m} \\ &= X(M\omega). \end{aligned}$$

This proves our claim. □

- Thanks to the 1-periodicity of X , the formula $Y(\omega) = X(M\omega)$ says that Y repeats M times an M -fold compressed version of X .

Amplitude modulation

- **Amplitude modulation** with respect to a **carrier signal** $c \in \ell^\infty(\mathbb{Z})$ is the linear operator defined by $m_c[x](n) := c(n) \cdot x(n)$.
- An important special case is the **frequency-shift** E_ω , $\omega \in (0, 1)$, defined by

$$E_\omega[x](n) := e^{-2\pi i \omega n} x(n).$$

- For the frequency signal $f_{\omega_0} = (e^{2\pi i \omega_0 n})_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} \in \ell^\infty(\mathbb{Z})$ one obtains

$$E_\omega[f_{\omega_0}] = f_{\omega_0 - \omega}.$$

- The operators E_ω and $E_{-\omega}$ are inverse to each other with respect to operator composition: $E_{-\omega} \circ E_\omega[x] = E_\omega \circ E_{-\omega}[x] = x$.
- The operator $E_{-\omega}$ is therefore called **demodulation operator**.
- Application: **frequency multiplexing**, e.g., for communication signals.
- ... or to make a bat sound audible to humans!

Spectral impact of modulation

Theorem 6 (Modulation Theorem). Let $x \in \ell^2(\mathbb{Z})$, $\omega_0 \in (0; 1)$, and $y = E_{\omega_0}x$. Then

$$Y(\omega) = X(\omega + \omega_0).$$

(We interpret X as a 1-periodic function.)

Proof. Note that $y(n) = x(n)e^{-2\pi i \omega_0 n}$. Hence

$$\begin{aligned} Y(\omega) &= \sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} y(n) e^{-2\pi i \omega n} = \sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} x(n) e^{-2\pi i \omega_0 n} e^{-2\pi i \omega n} = \sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} x(n) e^{-2\pi i (\omega_0 + \omega) n} \\ &= X(\omega_0 + \omega). \end{aligned}$$

This proves our claim. □

■ Thus a modulation of x with a frequency signal causes a cyclic shift in the spectral domain.

LTI systems and convolution

- Of particular importance are systems that commute with every time shift T^k .
- A system $S: \ell^p(\mathbb{Z}) \rightarrow \ell^r(\mathbb{Z})$ is called **time invariant**, if $S \circ T^k = T^k \circ S$ holds for all $k \in \mathbb{Z}$. This means, for all $k \in \mathbb{Z}$ and all $x \in \ell^p(\mathbb{Z})$: $S[x^k] = S[x]^k$.
- A system that is both linear and time invariant is called an **LTI-system**.
- LTI-systems have an important characterization in terms of convolutions.
- For two signals $x, y: \mathbb{Z} \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$, the **convolution** of x and y at position $n \in \mathbb{Z}$ is defined by

$$(x * y)(n) := \sum_{k \in \mathbb{Z}} x(k) y(n - k) = \sum_{k, \ell \in \mathbb{Z}: k + \ell = n} x(k) y(\ell).$$

- **Note:** $x * y$ only exists if x and y fulfill suitable conditions. Here comes an important example.

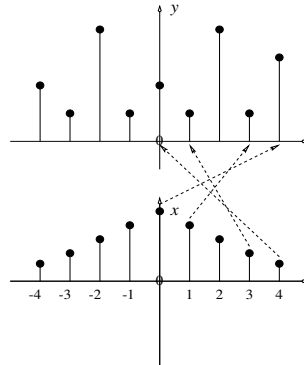
Theorem 7. Let $p \in [1, \infty]$. If $h \in \ell^1(\mathbb{Z})$, $x \in \ell^p(\mathbb{Z})$, then $h * x \in \ell^p$ and $\|h * x\|_p \leq \|h\|_1 \cdot \|x\|_p$.

Illustration of the convolution

Let $y: \mathbb{Z} \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$ denote a signal and let x be a probability density function on $\mathbb{Z}$, i.e. $x: \mathbb{Z} \rightarrow [0, 1]$ and $\sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} x(n) = 1$. Then

$$(x * y)(n) = \sum_{k \in \mathbb{Z}} x(k)y(n - k) = \sum_{k, \ell \in \mathbb{Z}: k + \ell = n} x(k)y(\ell)$$

may be interpreted as weighted average of y in a neighborhood of position n . We illustrate this for $n = 4$:



Properties of the convolution

Theorem 8. Let x, y, z denote signals $\mathbb{Z} \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$. Under the assumption that the following convolutions and products exist, the following laws hold:

- **Commutativity:** $x \cdot y = y \cdot x$, $x * y = y * x$,
- **Associativity:** $(x \cdot y) \cdot z = x \cdot (y \cdot z)$, $(x * y) * z = x * (y * z)$,
- **Distributivity:** $(x + y) \cdot z = x \cdot z + y \cdot z$, $(x + y) * z = x * z + y * z$.

From this and Theorem 7 it follows that for a fixed $h \in \ell^1(\mathbb{Z})$

$$C_h[x] := h * x$$

yields a well-defined and linear **convolution operator** $C_h: \ell^p(\mathbb{Z}) \rightarrow \ell^p(\mathbb{Z})$. Moreover, this operator is Lipschitz-continuous, i.e., there exists a constant $c \geq 0$ such that $\|C_h[x] - C_h[x']\|_p \leq c \cdot \|x - x'\|_p$ holds. In our case, $c = \|h\|_1$. (Note that that Lipschitz-continuity implies the classical notion of continuity.)

The convolution theorem

We describe the spectral impact of convolutions.

Theorem 9. Let $h \in \ell^1(\mathbb{Z})$ and $x \in \ell^2(\mathbb{Z})$. Then $y = h * x \in \ell^2(\mathbb{Z})$ and

$$\widehat{h * x} = \widehat{h} \cdot \widehat{x}.$$

Thus the convolution of h and x modifies the spectrum of x point-wise:

$$Y(\omega) = H(\omega) \cdot X(\omega) \quad (\omega \in [0; 1)).$$

Proof.

$$\begin{aligned} \widehat{h * x}(\omega) &= \sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} (h * x)(n) e^{-2\pi i \omega n} \\ &= \sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} \sum_{k \in \mathbb{Z}} h(k) x(n - k) e^{-2\pi i \omega (n - k + k)} \\ &= \sum_{k \in \mathbb{Z}} h(k) e^{-2\pi i \omega k} \sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} x(n - k) e^{-2\pi i \omega (n - k)} \\ &= \widehat{h}(\omega) \cdot \widehat{x}(\omega). \quad \square \end{aligned}$$

Time-shifts are convolution operators

Theorem 10. Let $p \in [1, \infty]$. For $k \in \mathbb{Z}$ the time-shift operator $T^k : \ell^p(\mathbb{Z}) \rightarrow \ell^p(\mathbb{Z})$ coincides with the convolution operator associated with the k -shifted delta-function δ^k :

$$T^k[x] = x^k = x * \delta^k, \quad \text{for all } x \in \ell^p(\mathbb{Z}).$$

Proof. Evaluating the left hand side at $n \in \mathbb{Z}$ yields $T^k[x](n) = x(n - k)$. For the corresponding value of the right hand side we obtain

$$\begin{aligned} (x * \delta^k)(n) &= \sum_{\ell \in \mathbb{Z}} x(\ell) \delta^k(n - \ell) = \sum_{\ell \in \mathbb{Z}} x(\ell) \delta_{k, n - \ell} \\ &= \sum_{\ell \in \mathbb{Z}} x(\ell) \delta_{\ell, n - k} = x(n - k) = T^k[x](n). \end{aligned}$$

Hence we have proved that the time-shift operator T^k and the convolution operator C_{δ^k} coincide on $\ell^p(\mathbb{Z})$. $\square$

Corollary 11. Let $p \in [1, \infty]$. The convolution operator corresponding to $h \in \ell^1(\mathbb{Z})$ is a continuous LTI-system $C_h : \ell^p(\mathbb{Z}) \rightarrow \ell^p(\mathbb{Z})$. Moreover, if C_h is applied to the unit impulse δ , then the system outputs h : $C_h[\delta] = h$. (Therefore h is called the **impulse response**.)

Frequency response

- The spectral characteristics of a convolution operator C_h , $h \in \ell^1(\mathbb{Z})$, are described by the Fourier transform of its impulse response:

Theorem 12. Let $f_\omega := (e^{2\pi i \omega n})_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} \in \ell^\infty(\mathbb{Z})$ denote the frequency signal corresponding to $\omega \in [0, 1)$. If $h \in \ell^1(\mathbb{Z})$, then

$$C_h[f_\omega] = H(\omega) \cdot f_\omega,$$

where $H(\omega) = \hat{h}(\omega) = \sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} h(n) e^{-2\pi i \omega n}$. Thus $H(\omega)$ is an eigenvalue of C_h belonging to the eigenvector f_ω . (Therefore, $\hat{h}$ is called the **frequency response** of the system C_h .)

Proof. For all $n \in \mathbb{Z}$ we obtain

$$\begin{aligned} C_h[f_\omega](n) &= \sum_{k \in \mathbb{Z}} h(k) f_\omega(n-k) = \sum_{k \in \mathbb{Z}} h(k) e^{2\pi i \omega (n-k)} \\ &= \sum_{k \in \mathbb{Z}} h(k) e^{-2\pi i \omega k} e^{2\pi i \omega n} = \left(\sum_{k \in \mathbb{Z}} h(k) e^{-2\pi i \omega k} \right) f_\omega(n) = H(\omega) \cdot f_\omega(n). \quad \square \end{aligned}$$

Amplitude response & phase response

- Let $T = C_h$, $h \in \ell^1(\mathbb{Z})$. Writing the frequency response of T in polar coordinates

$$H(\omega) = |H(\omega)| \cdot e^{2\pi i \Phi_h(\omega)} \quad (\omega \in [0; 1)),$$

we introduce the following notions:

- ◆ **amplitude response** $\omega \mapsto |H(\omega)|$,
- ◆ **phase response** $\omega \mapsto \Phi_h(\omega)$,
- ◆ **spectral energy density** $\omega \mapsto |H(\omega)|^2$.

- Note that the phase response is only defined for frequencies ω where $H(\omega) \neq 0$.

Properties of the frequency response

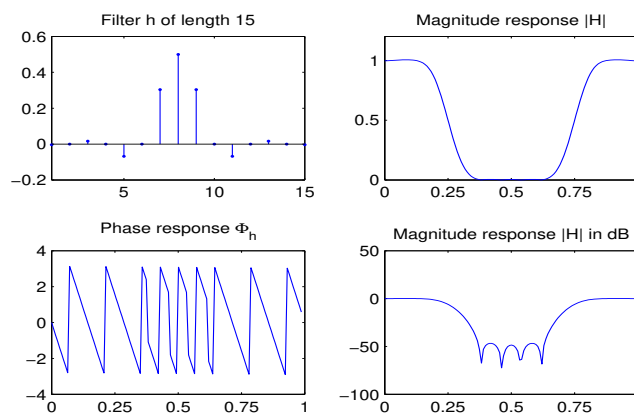
The frequency response H of a filter $h \in \ell^1(\mathbb{Z})$ contains the **spectral information** concerning h and has the following properties:

- For real-valued h , $\overline{H(\omega)} = H(-\omega)$. Hence the amplitude response then is an even function, $|H(\omega)| = |H(-\omega)|$, while the phase response is an odd function, $\Phi_h(-\omega) = -\Phi_h(\omega)$.
- The frequency response is 1-periodic. As the frequency response satisfies $\overline{H(\omega)} = H(-\omega)$ in case of real-valued h , in this case all information on H is contained in the restriction of H to the interval $[0, \frac{1}{2}]$, as for $\omega \in [0, \frac{1}{2}]$ one obtains

$$H(1 - \omega) = H(-\omega) = \overline{H(\omega)}.$$
- Spectral information regarding low (high) frequencies correspond to the $\omega \in [0, \frac{1}{2}]$ near 0 (near $\frac{1}{2}$ respectively).

Illustration: amplitude- & phase-response

The following illustration shows the amplitude response $|H|$ and the phase response Φ_h of a filter h of length 15. The filter coefficients $\neq 0$ of h are $h(1) = -0.0036 = h(15)$, $h(3) = 0.0161 = h(13)$, $h(5) = -0.0682 = h(11)$, $h(7) = 0.3038 = h(9)$ and $h(8) = 0.5$. The behavior of $|H|$ is furthermore represented in the decibel-scale.



FIR, IIR & causal filters

- Let $h \in \ell^1(\mathbb{Z})$. Then $h(n)$ is called the **n -th filter coefficient** of the LTI-system $T = C_h$.
- T is called an **FIR-filter** or **FIR-system** (Finite Impulse Response), if only finitely many filter coefficients are non-zero.
- Otherwise, it is called **IIR-filter** or **IIR-system** (Infinite Impulse Response).
- T is called **causal**, if $h(n) = 0$, for all $n < 0$. Causality is important in view of real-time applications (as one cannot access the future values of a signal).
- Usually, T and its impulse response h are identified.
- Causal FIR-filters $T = C_h$ of **order** N and **length** $N + 1$ are filters that can be written as

$$T[x](n) = \sum_{\ell=0}^N h(\ell)x(n-\ell)$$

with filter coefficients $h(0), \dots, h(N)$, $h(N) \neq 0$ and $h(0) \neq 0$. The n -th value of the output signal $T[x]$ then only depends on the *past* values $x(n-1), \dots, x(n-N)$ as well as on the *present* value $x(n)$ of the input signal x . (Hence one speaks of *causality*.)

Ideal low-, high- & band-pass filters

- $h \in \ell^1(\mathbb{Z})$ describes an (ideal) **low-pass filter** with a cut-off frequency $\omega_0 \in [0, \frac{1}{2}]$, if

$$|H(\omega)| \approx \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } |\omega| \in [0, \omega_0] \\ 0 & \text{if } |\omega| \in (\omega_0, \frac{1}{2}] \end{cases}$$

- Correspondingly, h is called an (ideal) **high-pass filter**, if

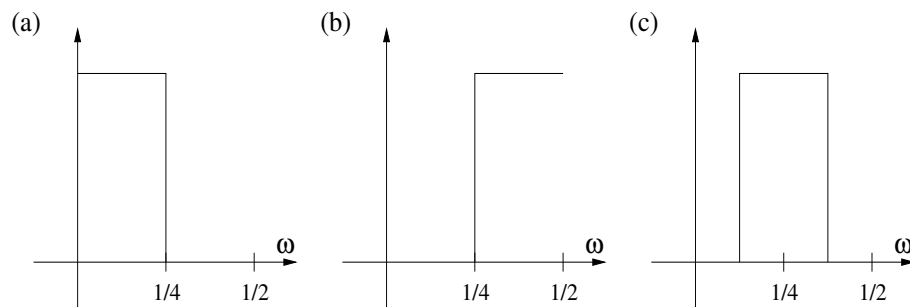
$$|H(\omega)| \approx \begin{cases} 1 & \text{for } |\omega| \in [\omega_0, \frac{1}{2}] \text{ and} \\ 0 & \text{for } |\omega| \in [0, \omega_0). \end{cases}$$

- Finally, h is an (ideal) **band-pass filter** for the cut-off frequencies $0 < \omega_0 < \omega_1 < \frac{1}{2}$, if

$$|H(\omega)| \approx \begin{cases} 1 & \text{for } |\omega| \in [\omega_0, \omega_1] \text{ and} \\ 0 & \text{for } |\omega| \in [0, \omega_0) \cup (\omega_1, \frac{1}{2}]. \end{cases}$$

Illustration of ideal filters

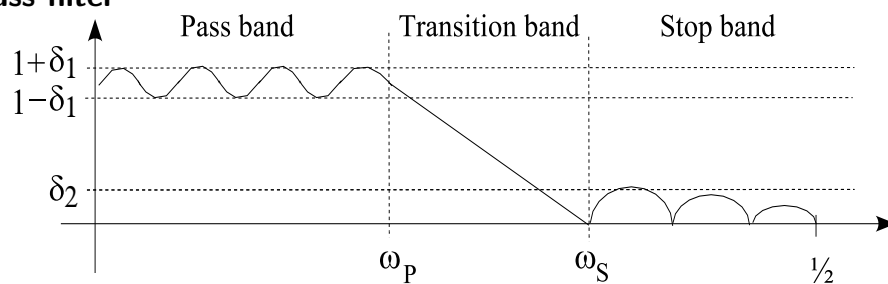
- The following figure shows the amplitude responses of ideal (a) low-pass-, (b) high-pass-, and (c) band-pass filters.



Lecture PM2L4 Audio

Chapter 3: Discrete Time Signals and Digital Filters – 26 / 33

Real low-pass filter



- The typical task of designing a filter may be specified by the following parameters:

1. maximum magnitude of ripple δ_1 in the pass-band
2. maximum magnitude of ripple δ_2 in the stop-band
3. band-edge frequency ω_P of the pass-band
4. band-edge frequency ω_S of the stop-band

Goal: construct a filter H with a frequency response H satisfying, or closely approximating, these specifications.

Lecture PM2L4 Audio

Chapter 3: Discrete Time Signals and Digital Filters – 27 / 33

The z-transform

The values of discrete signals may be interpreted as coefficients of polynomials (finite signals) or formal power series (infinite signals) in some variable, say z .

- For example, $x = (1, 3, 5) \rightsquigarrow 1 \cdot z^1 + 3 \cdot z^2 + 5 \cdot z^3 =: \mathbf{x}(z)$.
- Then, the convolution rather obviously corresponds to a multiplication of polynomials.
- Furthermore, a substitution $z \mapsto e^{2\pi i \omega}$ naturally yields a connection to the Fourier spectrum.
- Such a representation is useful and frequently used in filter design.
- This is formalized by the notion of z -transform or Laurent-series.

Definition of the z-transform

Definition. Let $x : \mathbb{Z} \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$ denote a signal. The **z-transform** $Z[x] =: X$ of x is the function $X : D_x \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$ defined by

$$X(z) := \sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} x(n) z^{-n},$$

where D_x denotes the largest open subset of $\mathbb{C}$ such that for all $z \in D_x$ the sum on the right hand side exists.

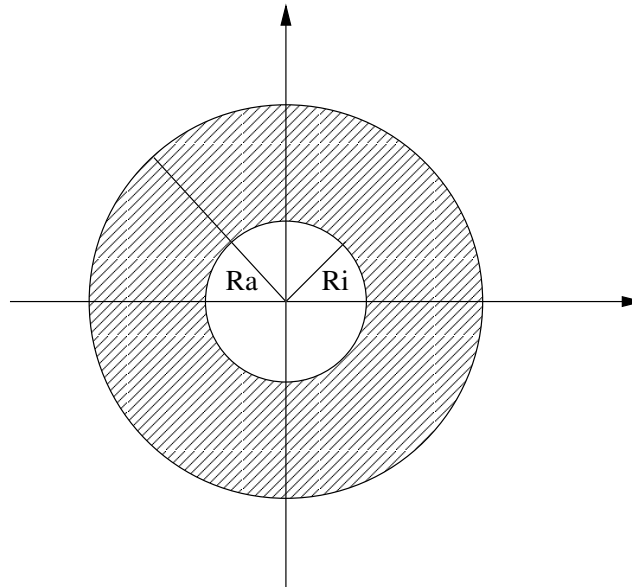
The **region of convergence** (ROC) is disc-shaped. The inner radius is given by

$$R_i(x) = \overline{\lim}_{n \rightarrow \infty} |x(n)|^{1/n},$$

while the outer radius is

$$R_a(x) = \frac{1}{\overline{\lim}_{n \rightarrow \infty} |x(-n)|^{1/n}}.$$

Illustration of region of convergence



Lecture PM2L4 Audio

Chapter 3: Discrete Time Signals and Digital Filters – 30 / 33

Properties of the z-transform (1)

Theorem 13. Let x, y, h denote signals $\mathbb{Z} \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$ with associated z -transforms X, Y, H . Then the following properties hold:

1. **Linearity:**

$$Z(\lambda x + y) = \lambda Z(x) + Z(y)$$

(on the common region of convergence!)

2. **Delay-property:** Let $y = x^k = T^k[x]$ denote the k -shifted version of x , then

$$Y(z) = z^{-k} X(z).$$

3. **Multiplication by an exponential:** let $0 \neq a \in \mathbb{C}$ and $y(n) = a^n \cdot x(n)$, then $D_y = |a| \cdot D_x$ and

$$Y(z) = X(z/a).$$

Lecture PM2L4 Audio

Chapter 3: Discrete Time Signals and Digital Filters – 31 / 33

Properties of the z-transform (2)

Theorem 14. Let x, y, h denote signals $\mathbb{Z} \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$ with associated z -transforms X, Y, H . Then the following properties hold:

4. **Conjugation-property:** let $y(n) = \overline{x(n)}$, then $D_y = D_x$ and

$$Y(z) = \overline{X(\overline{z})}.$$

5. **Time-reversal:** Let $y(n) = x(-n)$, then $D_y = D_x^{-1}$ and

$$Y(z) = X(z^{-1}).$$

6. **Convolution theorem:** Let $y = h * x$, then $D_h \cap D_x \subseteq D_y$ and

$$Y(z) = H(z) \cdot X(z).$$

Proof. Exercise!

Transfer function

Definition. The z -transform $H(z) = \sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} h(n)z^{-n}$ of the impulse response h of a continuous LTI-system T , $T[x] = h * x$, is called the **transfer-function** of the system.

Remarks.

- For $h \in \ell^1(\mathbb{Z})$, the Fourier transform $\hat{h}$ coincides with the z -transform of h restricted to the unit circle:

$$\hat{h}(\omega) = \sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} h(n)e^{-2\pi i \omega n} = H(e^{2\pi i \omega}).$$

- By abuse of notation, we have written above $H(\omega)$ instead of $H(e^{2\pi i \omega})$.